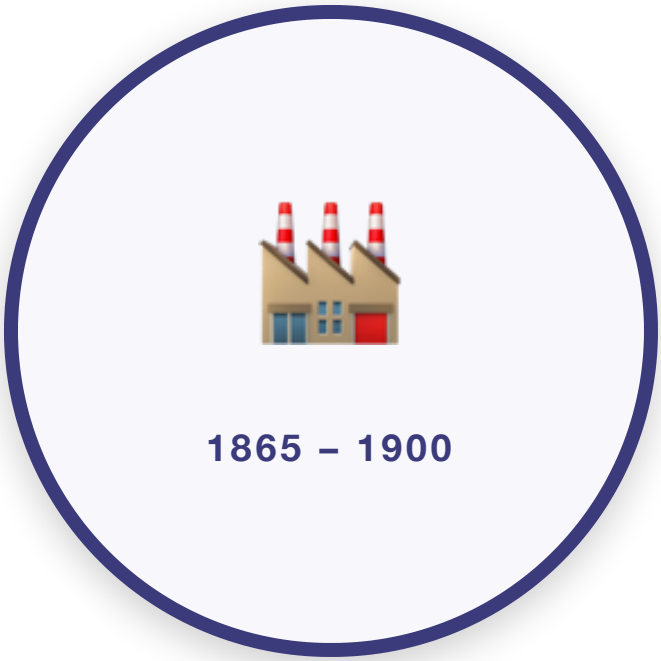
A U.S. HISTORY STUDY COMPANION

Industry & Immigration

Reconstruction, the Gilded Age, and the Making of Modern America



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OVERVIEW

The Big Picture

Everything in this book happens in one incredible stretch of American history — roughly **1865 to 1900**, from the end of the Civil War to the dawn of the twentieth century. In just 35 years the United States transformed itself more completely than in any other period. Before you dive into the details, it helps to see how the big stories connect.

The five chapters are really one story told from five angles. The **Civil War ended**, and the nation tried to rebuild and define freedom (**Reconstruction**). At the same moment, factories and railroads exploded across the country (**Industrialization**), creating a handful of fabulously rich **tycoons** who controlled entire industries. Those factories needed workers, so two things happened together: workers organized into **unions** to fight for fair treatment, and millions of **immigrants** poured into fast-growing **cities** to fill the jobs. Wealth and poverty, opportunity and injustice, grew side by side — which is why the whole era is nicknamed the "Gilded Age."

THE ONE THEME TO REMEMBER

This was an age of **dazzling progress sitting right next to serious problems.** Huge fortunes *and* crushing poverty. Open doors for some immigrants *and* slammed doors for others. New rights on paper *and* new ways to deny them. If an exam question asks about the "impact" of this era, a great answer almost always points to *both* the bright side and the dark side.

A Timeline of the Era

Year	Event	Why it matters
1862	Homestead Act & Morrill Act	Free Western land; public land-grant colleges
1865	Civil War ends; 13th Amendment	Slavery abolished; Reconstruction begins
1865–66	Black Codes passed in the South	Attempt to re-control freed people
1868	14th Amendment	Citizenship & "equal protection"
1869	Transcontinental Railroad completed	Nation connected coast to coast
1870	15th Amendment	Vote for African American men
1877	Reconstruction ends	Federal troops leave; Jim Crow rises
1882	Chinese Exclusion Act	First ban on a group by nationality

1886	American Federation of Labor founded	Lasting union of skilled workers
1887	Dawes Act	Broke up Native tribal lands
1892	Homestead Strike; Ellis Island opens	Union crushed; immigrants processed
1896	*Plessy v. Ferguson*	"Separate but equal" made legal
1907	Gentlemen's Agreement	Quietly limited Japanese immigration

HOW TO USE THIS BOOK

Each chapter defines every key term in a **purple box**, then uses it in the story so it actually makes sense. End-of-chapter **review questions** let you check yourself. The back has a full **glossary** and a **40-question practice test** (with answers) that asks terms *both* ways — "what does this word mean?" and "what word means this?" — exactly like the real quiz.

CHAPTER 1

Reconstruction

When the Civil War ended in 1865, the fighting was over — but an enormous question remained: how do you put the country back together? More than four million formerly enslaved people were now free. The Southern states that had left the Union had to be brought back in. And the nation had to decide what freedom would actually *mean*. The twelve years from 1865 to 1877, called **Reconstruction**, were America's attempt to answer those questions. It brought some of the most important changes in our history — and also some of its deepest disappointments.

1.1 Rebuilding After the Civil War

The word **Reconstruction** literally means "rebuilding." After the Civil War, the South was physically wrecked: farms, railroads, and whole cities like Atlanta and Richmond had been burned. But the harder job was *political* and *social* rebuilding — deciding on what terms the Confederate states could rejoin the Union, and what rights the newly freed African Americans would have.

The U.S. government passed three amendments to the Constitution to protect the freedom and rights of African Americans. These are called the **Reconstruction Amendments**, and they are three of the most important amendments ever added. Knowing what each one did — and in what order — is essential.

1.2 The Reconstruction Amendments

> **KEY TERM — 13TH AMENDMENT (1865)**
>
> **Abolished slavery** everywhere in the United States. This made the end of slavery permanent and national — it couldn't be undone by any single state. An easy way to remember: **13 = Freedom** (free from slavery).

KEY TERM — 14TH AMENDMENT (1868)

Granted **citizenship** to all people born in the United States (including formerly enslaved people) and promised all citizens **"equal protection of the laws."** This is one of the most powerful phrases in the Constitution and is still used in court cases today. Remember: **14 = Citizenship & equal protection**.

KEY TERM — 15TH AMENDMENT (1870)

Said that the right to **vote** could not be denied because of "race, color, or previous condition of servitude." In other words, it gave African American *men* the right to vote. (Women of all races still could not vote — that would wait until the 19th Amendment in 1920.) Remember: **15 = Voting**.

Put together, the three amendments moved in a logical order: first you are **free** (13th), then you are a **citizen** with equal rights (14th), then you can **vote** (15th). For a few years during Reconstruction, these amendments had real power. Hundreds of African American men were elected to office, including to the U.S. Congress, and public schools were built across the South.

1.3 Taking Rights Away: Black Codes, Jim Crow, and *Plessy*

Unfortunately, many white Southerners fought to keep African Americans from using their new rights. As soon as the war ended, Southern states passed laws designed to control freed people and push them back toward their old condition.

KEY TERM — BLACK CODES

Laws passed in Southern states right after the Civil War (1865–66) to **limit the freedom of formerly enslaved people**. They forced many Black Americans into low-paying farm labor, restricted what jobs they could hold, and punished those who did not have work contracts. The Black Codes were an attempt to recreate slavery in all but name.

The 14th and 15th Amendments were partly a *response* to the Black Codes — Congress wrote them to overturn these unfair laws. But when Reconstruction ended in 1877 and federal troops left the South, discrimination came roaring back in a new, longer-lasting form.

KEY TERM — JIM CROW LAWS

State and local laws, especially in the South, that enforced **racial segregation** — the forced separation of Black and white people — from the 1870s into the 1960s. Jim Crow laws separated schools, trains, restaurants, water fountains, and nearly every part of public life. In theory the facilities were "equal"; in reality those for Black Americans were almost always worse.

KEY TERM — *PLESSY V. FERGUSON* (1896)

A Supreme Court case that ruled segregation was legal as long as the separate facilities were "equal." This created the doctrine of **"separate but equal."** It gave legal cover to Jim Crow for almost 60 years, until it was finally overturned by *Brown v. Board of Education* in 1954.

Homer Plessy, who was part Black, deliberately sat in a "whites-only" train car in Louisiana to challenge the law. He lost. The Court said that separating the races did not make one group inferior — a claim that was obviously false in practice. The lone dissenting judge, John Marshall Harlan, wrote that "our Constitution is color-blind," but his was the only vote against. "Separate but equal" became the law of the land.

CONNECTING THE DOTS

Think of Reconstruction as two tugs-of-war happening at once. Congress pulled **toward** rights (the three amendments). Southern states pulled **away** from them (Black Codes → Jim Crow → *Plessy*). When federal troops withdrew in 1877, the second side gained the upper hand for decades.

WHY IT MATTERS

Reconstruction shows both the promise and the limits of law. The amendments were a giant step toward equality — but laws only protect people when they are actually enforced. The rights won on paper in the 1860s weren't truly enforced until the Civil Rights Movement nearly 100 years later.

CHAPTER 1 — REVIEW QUESTIONS

1. Put the three Reconstruction Amendments in order and give the one big idea of each.
2. What were the Black Codes trying to accomplish, and which amendments were written to stop them?
3. What doctrine did *Plessy v. Ferguson* create, and what did it allow for the next ~60 years?
4. Explain the difference between *having* a right on paper and *being able to use* that right.

CHAPTER 2

The Industrial Revolution in America

In the years after the Civil War, the United States changed faster than at almost any other time in its history. A nation of farms and small workshops became the biggest industrial power on Earth. Factories replaced farms as the engine of the economy, steel and oil replaced wood and whale oil, and railroads stitched the whole country together. This explosion of factories, machines, and big business is called **industrialization**, and it reshaped how Americans worked, where they lived, and how rich — or poor — they could become.

2.1 What Industrialization Was

> **KEY TERM — INDUSTRIALIZATION**
>
> The shift from making goods **by hand in homes and small shops** to making them **by machine in large factories**. It brought mass production, new technology, railroads, and the rapid growth of cities. In the U.S., it took off dramatically between about 1865 and 1900.

Several things made America's industrial boom possible all at once: huge supplies of natural resources (coal, iron, oil, timber), a growing population of workers (many of them immigrants), new inventions (the light bulb, the telephone, the Bessemer process for cheap steel), and a transportation network — the railroads — that could move raw materials to factories and finished goods to markets.

2.2 The Economic Rules of the Game

To understand this era, you need a few economic ideas. They describe the "rules" that businesses were playing by.

> **KEY TERM — FREE MARKET**
>
> An economy where **prices and production are decided by buyers and sellers**, not by the government. People are free to start businesses, set prices, and compete.

KEY TERM — SUPPLY AND DEMAND

The basic force that sets prices in a free market. **Supply** is how much of a good is available; **demand** is how much people want it. When supply is low and demand is high, prices rise. When supply is high and demand is low, prices fall.

KEY TERM — LAISSEZ-FAIRE CAPITALISM

Laissez-faire is French for "let them do" (as in, let businesses do as they please). It is the idea that the **government should stay out of the economy** and not regulate business. During the Gilded Age, laissez-faire was the dominant belief, which is why big companies were able to grow so powerful with few rules to stop them.

KEY TERM — COMPETITION

The rivalry between businesses selling similar products. In theory, competition is good for customers: companies compete by lowering prices and improving quality to win buyers. **Key idea:** competition keeps prices fair and pushes businesses to improve — which is exactly why powerful companies tried to *destroy* competition (see Chapter 3).

Here is how these ideas fit together. In a **free market**, the price of steel or oil is set by **supply and demand**. **Competition** between companies normally keeps those prices honest. And because the government followed **laissez-faire**, it mostly refused to interfere — which gave clever, ruthless businessmen enormous freedom to build empires.

2.3 Social Darwinism and the Gilded Age

KEY TERM — SOCIAL DARWINISM

The belief that the same "survival of the fittest" idea from nature applies to people and businesses — that the rich are rich because they are naturally the "fittest," and the poor are poor because they are not. It was used to **justify** huge gaps between rich and poor and to argue against helping the needy. (It was a misuse of Charles Darwin's biology, which was never about society.)

Social Darwinism was popular with the wealthy because it told them their fortunes were deserved and natural. It fit perfectly with laissez-faire: if success and failure are "natural," then the government shouldn't interfere by regulating business or helping the poor.

KEY TERM — GILDED AGE

The nickname for roughly the 1870s–1890s, coined by author Mark Twain. "Gilded" means **covered in a thin layer of gold**. Twain's point was that the era *looked* golden and glamorous on the surface — fabulous mansions and fortunes — but underneath was corruption, poverty, and harsh working conditions. The glitter was only skin-deep.

The Gilded Age was an age of extremes. A handful of businessmen became some of the richest people who have ever lived, building marble mansions and throwing lavish parties. At the same time, millions of workers and immigrants lived in crowded, dangerous slums and worked twelve-hour days for low pay. That gap between the dazzling surface and the grim reality underneath is the whole point of the name.

WHY IT MATTERS

The debates of the Gilded Age — how much should government regulate business? Is a big gap between rich and poor fair or dangerous? — are the exact same debates Americans still argue about today. Understanding where they came from helps you understand modern politics.

CHAPTER 2 — REVIEW QUESTIONS

1. Define industrialization and list two things that made America's industrial boom possible.
2. How do supply and demand set prices in a free market?
3. Explain how laissez-faire and Social Darwinism supported each other.
4. Why did Mark Twain call this era the "Gilded" Age? What was the hidden reality under the gold?

CHAPTER 3

Big Business & the Tycoons

The Gilded Age produced a new kind of American: the business tycoon. Men like Andrew Carnegie, John D. Rockefeller, and Cornelius Vanderbilt built companies so enormous they could control entire industries. To do it, they invented powerful new business strategies — monopolies, trusts, and two kinds of "integration." People argued fiercely about these men: were they heroes who built modern America, or greedy villains who crushed everyone in their path? That argument is the heart of this chapter.

3.1 How to Control an Industry: Monopolies, Trusts & Integration

The goal of the biggest businessmen was to escape competition. If your company is the *only* one selling a product, you can charge whatever you want. Here are the tools they used.

KEY TERM — MONOPOLY

When **one company controls all (or nearly all) of an industry**, with little or no competition. A monopoly can set high prices because customers have nowhere else to go. Rockefeller's Standard Oil came close to a total monopoly over oil.

KEY TERM — TRUST

A way of combining many companies under **one controlling board** so they stop competing and act as a single giant business. Trusts were how tycoons built monopolies. The word is why laws to break up monopolies are still called **"antitrust"** laws.

KEY TERM — HORIZONTAL INTEGRATION

Buying up all your competitors — all the companies at the *same* stage of an industry. Example: Rockefeller bought up rival *oil refineries* until Standard Oil controlled almost all refining. Think of it as spreading out *sideways* to swallow the competition.

KEY TERM — VERTICAL INTEGRATION

Owning every step of production, from raw material to finished product. Example: Carnegie owned the iron mines, the coal, the railroads, *and* the steel mills — so he depended on no one and controlled his costs. Think of it as reaching *up and down* the supply chain.

DON'T MIX THEM UP!

Horizontal = *same* step, buy your **competitors** (sideways). Rockefeller & oil refineries.
Vertical = *different* steps, own your whole **supply chain** (up and down). Carnegie & steel.

3.2 Robber Barons or Captains of Industry?

People used two very different nicknames for these businessmen, depending on what they thought of them.

KEY TERM — ROBBER BARON

A **negative** nickname for a wealthy businessman who got rich through **ruthless, unfair, or greedy methods** — crushing competitors, paying workers as little as possible, and bribing politicians. The word suggests they "robbed" the public and their workers.

KEY TERM — CAPTAIN OF INDUSTRY

A **positive** nickname for the same kind of businessman, praising him for **building industries, creating jobs, and strengthening the economy** — and often for giving money away to good causes.

Here's the key insight: a robber baron and a captain of industry could be the *exact same person*. The label just depends on whether you focus on the harm they caused or the good they did. Historians still debate which label fits each tycoon.

KEY TERM — PHILANTHROPIST

A person who **gives large amounts of money to help others** — to build libraries, schools, hospitals, and universities. Many tycoons became famous philanthropists later in life, which is a big reason some people call them "captains of industry" rather than "robber barons."

3.3 Meet the Tycoons

KEY TERM — ANDREW CARNEGIE

The **steel** king. A poor Scottish immigrant who built Carnegie Steel into the largest steel company in the world using **vertical integration**. He then sold it and gave away most of his fortune — funding over 2,500 public libraries — becoming the model **philanthropist**. He wrote "The Gospel of Wealth," arguing the rich had a duty to give their money back to society.

KEY TERM — JOHN D. ROCKEFELLER

The **oil** king. He founded **Standard Oil** and used **horizontal integration** to buy out rival refineries until he controlled about 90% of America's oil — a near-total **monopoly** run as a **trust**. The richest American of his era. He later gave away hundreds of millions to medicine and education.

KEY TERM — CORNELIUS VANDERBILT

The **railroad** (and shipping) king. He built an early fortune in steamships, then came to dominate the railroads of the Northeast, helping connect and standardize the rail network. One of the wealthiest Americans ever; his money later founded Vanderbilt University.

KEY TERM — J. P. MORGAN

The **banker** and finance king. Rather than making a product, Morgan controlled **money** — he financed and merged giant companies. He bought Carnegie Steel and combined it with others to create **U.S. Steel**, the first billion-dollar company. His bank was so powerful it once helped rescue the entire U.S. economy during a financial panic.

Tycoon	Industry	Signature strategy	Remembered for
Andrew Carnegie	Steel	Vertical integration	Libraries; "Gospel of Wealth"
John D. Rockefeller	Oil (Standard Oil)	Horizontal integration; trust	~90% oil monopoly; huge giving
Cornelius Vanderbilt	Railroads & shipping	Buying up rail lines	Connecting the rail network
J. P. Morgan	Banking / finance	Merging companies with money	Created U.S. Steel

3.4 The Transcontinental Railroad

No single project shows the power of this era better than the **Transcontinental Railroad**, completed in 1869, which connected the eastern rail network to the Pacific coast for the first time. Two companies built toward each other — the Central Pacific working east from California (using thousands of Chinese immigrant laborers) and the Union Pacific working west (using Irish immigrants and Civil War veterans) — meeting at Promontory Summit, Utah.

IMPACT OF THE TRANSCONTINENTAL RAILROAD

- **Tied the country together.** A cross-country trip dropped from months to about a week.
- **Powered industry and trade.** Raw materials and finished goods could now move cheaply across the whole nation — a national market.
- **Grew the West.** New towns and farms sprang up along the tracks; it encouraged westward settlement.
- **Hurt Native Americans.** It cut through Native lands, destroyed buffalo herds, and sped up the loss of Native territory and ways of life.
- **Relied on immigrant labor** — especially Chinese workers, who did the most dangerous work for low pay.

WHY IT MATTERS

These companies and strategies created the modern American economy — big corporations, national brands, and a connected country. But they also created problems (monopolies, powerless workers, a huge rich-poor gap) that forced Americans to ask a new question: should the government step in to control big business? The answer, eventually, was yes — leading to antitrust laws and the reforms of the 1900s.

CHAPTER 3 — REVIEW QUESTIONS

1. Explain the difference between horizontal and vertical integration, and give the tycoon famous for each.
2. How are a monopoly and a trust related?
3. Why could the same person be called both a "robber baron" and a "captain of industry"?
4. Give two positive and one negative impact of the Transcontinental Railroad.

CHAPTER 4

Workers & Labor Unions

While the tycoons built fortunes, the people who actually ran the machines lived very different lives. Factory workers — including women and children — labored twelve hours a day, six days a week, for low pay in dangerous conditions. With the government following laissez-faire, workers had almost no legal protection. So they did the one thing that could give them power against a giant company: they joined together. The story of labor unions is the story of ordinary workers trying to balance the scales against big business.

4.1 Life for the Working Class

A single worker had no power against a company like Standard Oil or Carnegie Steel. If you complained about your 12-hour day, your dangerous machine, or your tiny paycheck, you were simply fired — and there were always desperate immigrants ready to take your place. Workers realized their only strength was in **numbers**. One worker is easy to replace; ten thousand workers who all stop at once can shut a company down.

4.2 Unions and the AFL

A **labor union** is an organized group of workers who join together to bargain with their employer for better wages, hours, and conditions. Their most powerful weapon is the **strike** — refusing to work until demands are met. Unions also used **collective bargaining**, in which representatives negotiate for all the workers at once.

> **KEY TERM — AMERICAN FEDERATION OF LABOR (AFL)**
>
> One of the first large, lasting labor unions in the U.S., founded in 1886 and led by **Samuel Gompers**. The AFL was made up mostly of **skilled workers** and focused on practical "bread and butter" goals: **higher wages, shorter hours, and safer working conditions**. By sticking to skilled workers and realistic demands, it survived when many other unions collapsed.

4.3 Successes, Failures, and the Homestead Strike

Unions had a hard, uphill fight. Companies, the courts, and often the government all sided with the owners.

SUCCESSES OF UNIONS

- Over time, won **higher wages** and **shorter workdays** (eventually the 8-hour day).
- Won **safer working conditions** and, later, limits on **child labor**.
- Gave workers a **collective voice** and proved that organizing worked — building momentum for the labor laws of the 1900s.

FAILURES / LIMITS OF UNIONS

- Strikes often **failed** and turned violent; strikers were frequently fired or "blacklisted."
- The **government usually took the owners' side**, sending in troops or police to break strikes.
- Companies used **strikebreakers** ("scabs") to replace striking workers.
- Early unions often **excluded** unskilled workers, Black workers, and women, which limited their strength.

KEY TERM — HOMESTEAD STRIKE (1892)

A major, violent strike at **Carnegie's Homestead steel plant** near Pittsburgh. When the company cut wages, workers struck. Manager Henry Clay Frick hired armed **Pinkerton** guards; a gun battle broke out, killing people on both sides. The state militia was sent in, the strike was crushed, and the union was broken at Homestead for decades. It is the classic example of a **union failure** — and of how companies and the government combined to defeat workers.

WHY IT MATTERS

Almost every workplace right we take for granted — the weekend, the 8-hour day, overtime pay, safety rules, the end of child labor — exists because workers organized and fought for it during and after this era. The Homestead Strike shows how steep the odds were, and why those wins took so long.

CHAPTER 4 — REVIEW QUESTIONS

1. Why did individual workers have so little power, and how did a union change that?
2. What kinds of workers did the AFL focus on, and what were its main goals?
3. Give one success and one failure of the labor movement.
4. Why is the Homestead Strike considered an example of a union failure?

CHAPTER 5

Immigration & Urbanization

America's factories needed workers, and the world sent them. Between 1880 and 1920, more than 20 million immigrants arrived in the United States — the largest wave of newcomers in the nation's history up to that point. They crowded into fast-growing cities, took the hardest jobs, and remade American culture. This chapter explains who these "new immigrants" were, why they came, the cities they filled, and the laws — some welcoming, many hostile — that the government passed in response.

5.1 The "New Immigration"

KEY TERM — "NEW IMMIGRATION"

The wave of immigrants (roughly 1880–1920) who came mainly from **Southern and Eastern Europe** (Italy, Poland, Russia, Greece) and from Asia — and were often **Catholic, Jewish, or Orthodox**. This was different from the "old immigration" before the Civil War, which came mostly from **Northern and Western Europe** (Britain, Ireland, Germany) and was mostly Protestant. Because the "new immigrants" looked, spoke, and worshipped differently from earlier Americans, they faced intense prejudice.

5.2 Why They Came: Push and Pull Factors

Historians explain migration using two kinds of forces: things that **pushed** people out of their home countries, and things that **pulled** them toward America.

KEY TERM — PUSH FACTORS

Reasons that **drive people away** from their home country: poverty, famine, overcrowding, lack of jobs, war, and **religious or political persecution** (for example, violent attacks on Jews in Russia called pogroms).

KEY TERM — PULL FACTORS

Reasons that **attract people to** a new country: **jobs** in America's booming factories, **freedom** (religious and political), the chance to own land, and the hope of a better life — the "American Dream." Letters from relatives already in America pulled many more to follow.

KEY TERM — ELLIS ISLAND

The main **immigration inspection station** in New York Harbor (opened 1892), where millions of European immigrants were processed. New arrivals passed medical exams and legal questioning; most were admitted within hours, but some were turned away for disease. It sat in the shadow of the Statue of Liberty — often the first thing immigrants saw. (On the West Coast, Asian immigrants were processed at **Angel Island**, where they faced much harsher treatment and long detentions.)

5.3 Cities Explode: Urbanization

KEY TERM — URBANIZATION

The **growth of cities** as people move from farms and foreign countries into urban areas. During this era, American cities like New York and Chicago grew explosively as factories drew in millions of workers.

CAUSES OF URBANIZATION

- **Factory jobs** were located in cities, so workers moved there.
- **Immigrants** arrived and settled in cities where jobs and relatives already were.
- **Farm machinery** meant fewer farm workers were needed, pushing rural Americans into cities.
- New technology (**skyscrapers, elevators, electric streetcars**) let cities hold more people.

PROBLEMS OF URBANIZATION

- **Overcrowding** in filthy, poorly built apartments called **tenements**.
- **Disease** spread fast due to poor sanitation and dirty water.
- **Pollution**, crime, and fire hazards.
- **Child labor** and extreme poverty in city slums.
- **Political corruption** — city "political machines" like Tammany Hall traded help for votes.

Cities were places of opportunity *and* misery at the same time — the Gilded Age pattern again. The same city that offered a job also offered a disease-ridden tenement to live in.

5.4 The Laws: Land, Schools, and Restriction

The government responded to industrialization and immigration with a series of important laws. Some opened up opportunity; several specifically targeted and excluded certain groups. Keep straight *what each one did* and *who it affected*.

KEY TERM — HOMESTEAD ACT (1862)

Gave **free land** (160 acres) to any citizen or future citizen who would farm it for five years. It encouraged huge numbers of people — including immigrants and freed African Americans — to settle and farm the **West**, speeding up westward expansion.

KEY TERM — MORRILL ACT (1862)

Gave states federal land to sell in order to fund **public colleges** — the "land-grant" universities. It made higher education, especially in **agriculture and engineering**, far more available to ordinary Americans. (Many big state universities today exist because of it.)

KEY TERM — CHINESE EXCLUSION ACT (1882)

A law that **banned almost all immigration from China**. It was the **first** U.S. law to bar a group based on nationality/race, and it reflected the intense prejudice Chinese immigrants faced — even though they had built much of the Transcontinental Railroad. It stayed in force for about 60 years.

KEY TERM — GENTLEMEN'S AGREEMENT (1907)

An informal deal between the U.S. and **Japan**: Japan agreed to **stop issuing passports** to laborers heading to the U.S., and in return the U.S. (San Francisco) agreed to stop segregating Japanese children in schools. It was a quieter way to **limit Japanese immigration** without an outright ban like the Chinese Exclusion Act.

KEY TERM — DAWES ACT (1887)

A law aimed at **Native Americans**. It broke up tribal lands and divided them into individual family farm plots, trying to force Native Americans to **give up their culture and assimilate** into white American society. In practice it was a disaster: tribes lost about **two-thirds of their remaining land**, and the policy damaged Native communities for generations.

Law (year)	What it did	Who it mainly affected
Homestead Act (1862)	Gave free Western land to farmers	Settlers, immigrants, freed people

Morrill Act (1862)	Funded public "land-grant" colleges	Ordinary Americans seeking education
Chinese Exclusion Act (1882)	Banned Chinese immigration	Chinese immigrants
Dawes Act (1887)	Split up tribal land; forced assimilation	Native Americans (lost ~⅔ of land)
Gentlemen's Agreement (1907)	Quietly limited Japanese immigration	Japanese immigrants

SPOT THE PATTERN

Two of these laws (**Homestead, Morrill**) *opened* opportunity for ordinary Americans. Three of them (**Chinese Exclusion, Gentlemen's Agreement, Dawes**) *restricted* or harmed specific groups — Chinese, Japanese, and Native Americans. The same era that welcomed millions of Europeans at Ellis Island was slamming the door on others. That contradiction is one of the most important themes of the period.

WHY IT MATTERS

The "new immigrants" of this era became the grandparents and great-grandparents of a huge share of Americans today, and they shaped the food, language, and culture of the whole country. The debates over who should be allowed in — and the prejudice behind laws like the Chinese Exclusion Act — are still echoing in America's immigration arguments now.

CHAPTER 5 — REVIEW QUESTIONS

1. How was the "new immigration" different from the "old immigration" (where from, religion)?
2. Give two push factors and two pull factors for immigration.
3. List two causes and two problems of urbanization.
4. Sort these five laws into "opened opportunity" vs. "restricted a group": Homestead, Morrill, Chinese Exclusion, Dawes, Gentlemen's Agreement.

REFERENCE

Glossary of Must-Know Terms

13th Amendment (1865)
Abolished slavery throughout the United States.

14th Amendment (1868)
Granted citizenship and "equal protection of the laws" to all people born in the U.S.

15th Amendment (1870)
Gave African American men the right to vote.

Black Codes
Post-Civil War Southern laws that restricted the freedom of formerly enslaved people.

Jim Crow Laws
Laws enforcing racial segregation in the South from the 1870s to the 1960s.

Plessy v. Ferguson (1896)
Supreme Court case that made segregation legal under "separate but equal."

Industrialization
The shift from making goods by hand to making them by machine in large factories.

Free Market
An economy where prices and production are set by buyers and sellers, not the government.

Supply and Demand
The balance of availability and desire that sets prices in a free market.

Laissez-faire Capitalism
The belief that government should stay out of the economy.

Competition
Rivalry between businesses that normally keeps prices fair and quality high.

Social Darwinism
The belief that "survival of the fittest" explains wealth and poverty, used to justify inequality.

Gilded Age
The 1870s–1890s: glittering wealth on the surface, corruption and poverty underneath.

Monopoly
When one company controls an entire industry with little competition.

Trust
Combining many companies under one board to end competition and form a monopoly.

Horizontal Integration

Buying up competitors at the same stage of an industry (Rockefeller, oil).

Vertical Integration

Owning every step of production from raw material to finished product (Carnegie, steel).

Robber Baron

Negative term for a tycoon who got rich through ruthless, unfair methods.

Captain of Industry

Positive term for a tycoon who built industry, created jobs, and gave to charity.

Philanthropist

A person who gives large sums of money to help others (libraries, schools, hospitals).

Andrew Carnegie

Steel tycoon; used vertical integration; famous philanthropist (libraries).

John D. Rockefeller

Oil tycoon; Standard Oil; used horizontal integration to build a near-monopoly.

Cornelius Vanderbilt

Railroad and shipping tycoon who dominated Northeast rail lines.

J. P. Morgan

Banker who merged companies; created U.S. Steel, the first billion-dollar company.

Transcontinental Railroad

1869 rail line connecting the East to the Pacific; united the nation, hurt Native peoples.

Labor Union

An organized group of workers who bargain together for better wages and conditions.

American Federation of Labor (AFL)

Early lasting union of skilled workers led by Samuel Gompers; sought wages, hours, safety.

Strike

Workers refusing to work until their demands are met — a union's main weapon.

Homestead Strike (1892)

Violent, failed strike at Carnegie's steel plant; broke the union for decades.

"New Immigration"

1880–1920 immigrants, mostly from Southern/Eastern Europe and Asia.

Push Factors

Reasons people leave home: poverty, famine, persecution, war.

Pull Factors

Reasons people come to America: jobs, freedom, land, a better life.

Ellis Island

Main immigration station in New York Harbor; processed millions of Europeans.

Urbanization

The rapid growth of cities as people move in from farms and abroad.

Tenement

A crowded, often unsafe city apartment building where many immigrants lived.

Homestead Act (1862)

Gave free Western land to settlers who farmed it for five years.

Morrill Act (1862)

Funded public "land-grant" colleges through grants of federal land.

Chinese Exclusion Act (1882)

Banned Chinese immigration — the first U.S. law to bar a group by nationality.

Gentlemen's Agreement (1907)

Informal deal that quietly limited Japanese immigration.

Dawes Act (1887)

Broke up Native tribal land to force assimilation; tribes lost ~⅔ of their land.

PRACTICE

Practice Test — 40 Questions

Questions go **both ways**: some give you the term and ask what it means; others give you a definition or example and ask you to name the term. Answer key with explanations follows. (Circle your answer.)

Part A — Reconstruction

1. Which amendment **abolished slavery** in the United States?
   (1) 13th (2) 14th (3) 15th (4) 19th
2. The 14th Amendment is best described as the one that
   (1) ended slavery (2) gave citizenship and "equal protection" (3) gave the vote to Black men (4) gave women the vote
3. The 15th Amendment gave which group the right to vote?
   (1) all women (2) African American men (3) immigrants (4) Native Americans
4. Southern laws passed right after the Civil War to limit the freedom of formerly enslaved people were called
   (1) Jim Crow laws (2) Black Codes (3) the Dawes Act (4) trusts
5. "Separate but equal" was the doctrine created by
   (1) the Homestead Act (2) *Plessy v. Ferguson* (3) the 14th Amendment (4) the AFL
6. Laws that enforced racial **segregation** in the South from the 1870s to the 1960s were
   (1) Black Codes (2) Jim Crow laws (3) pull factors (4) antitrust laws
7. Which lists the Reconstruction Amendments in the correct order of *freedom → citizenship → voting*?
   (1) 14th, 13th, 15th (2) 15th, 14th, 13th (3) 13th, 14th, 15th (4) 13th, 15th, 14th
8. **(Short answer)** Explain how the Black Codes and the 14th Amendment were connected.

Part B — Industrialization & the Gilded Age

9. The shift from making goods by hand to making them by machine in factories is called
   (1) urbanization (2) industrialization (3) segregation (4) philanthropy
10. The idea that the **government should stay out of the economy** is
    (1) Social Darwinism (2) a monopoly (3) laissez-faire (4) collective bargaining

11. In a free market, when supply is low and demand is high, prices tend to
    (1) rise (2) fall (3) stay exactly the same (4) disappear
12. Which term means the belief that "survival of the fittest" explains why some people are rich and others poor?
    (1) competition (2) Social Darwinism (3) free market (4) a trust
13. Mark Twain's nickname for an era that looked golden but hid corruption and poverty was the
    (1) Gilded Age (2) Progressive Era (3) Reconstruction (4) New Deal
14. Rivalry between businesses that normally keeps prices fair and quality high is
    (1) a monopoly (2) a trust (3) competition (4) a push factor
15. "An economy where buyers and sellers, not the government, set prices" defines a
    (1) command economy (2) free market (3) trust (4) tenement
16. **(Short answer)** Explain how laissez-faire and Social Darwinism supported each other during the Gilded Age.

Part C — Big Business & the Tycoons

17. When **one company controls an entire industry** with little competition, that is a
    (1) union (2) monopoly (3) strike (4) free market
18. Buying up all of your **competitors** at the same stage of an industry is
    (1) vertical integration (2) horizontal integration (3) philanthropy (4) collective bargaining
19. Owning **every step of production**, from raw materials to the finished product, is
    (1) horizontal integration (2) a push factor (3) vertical integration (4) a trust
20. Combining many companies under one controlling board to end competition is a
    (1) tenement (2) trust (3) strike (4) pull factor
21. The **oil** tycoon who built Standard Oil using horizontal integration was
    (1) Andrew Carnegie (2) J. P. Morgan (3) John D. Rockefeller (4) Cornelius Vanderbilt
22. Andrew Carnegie is most associated with
    (1) oil (2) steel (3) banking (4) railroads
23. The banker who merged companies to create U.S. Steel, the first billion-dollar company, was
    (1) J. P. Morgan (2) John D. Rockefeller (3) Samuel Gompers (4) Cornelius Vanderbilt
24. A **negative** nickname for a tycoon who got rich through ruthless, unfair methods is
    (1) captain of industry (2) philanthropist (3) robber baron (4) homesteader

25. A person who gives away large amounts of money for libraries, schools, and hospitals is a

(1) robber baron (2) philanthropist (3) monopolist (4) strikebreaker

26. One major impact of the Transcontinental Railroad (1869) was that it

(1) ended all immigration (2) connected the country and created a national market (3) gave women the vote (4) broke up Standard Oil

27. **(Short answer)** Explain the difference between horizontal and vertical integration, using Rockefeller and Carnegie as examples.

Part D — Labor, Immigration & Urbanization

28. An organized group of workers who bargain together for better wages and conditions is a

(1) trust (2) labor union (3) monopoly (4) political machine

29. The AFL, led by Samuel Gompers, focused mainly on

(1) unskilled workers and revolution (2) skilled workers and better wages, hours, and safety (3) ending immigration (4) building railroads

30. The violent 1892 strike at Carnegie's steel plant that broke the union for decades was the

(1) Homestead Strike (2) Gentlemen's Agreement (3) Dawes rebellion (4) Pullman Act

31. The "new immigrants" of 1880–1920 came mostly from

(1) Britain and Germany (2) Southern and Eastern Europe and Asia (3) Canada and Mexico (4) Africa

32. Poverty, famine, and religious persecution that **drive people out** of their home country are

(1) pull factors (2) push factors (3) trusts (4) pogroms only

33. Jobs and freedom that **attract** immigrants to America are

(1) push factors (2) pull factors (3) Black Codes (4) monopolies

34. The main immigration station in New York Harbor was

(1) Angel Island (2) Ellis Island (3) Promontory Summit (4) Homestead

35. The rapid growth of cities as people moved in from farms and abroad is

(1) industrialization (2) urbanization (3) segregation (4) assimilation

36. Which was a common **problem** of urbanization?

(1) free college (2) overcrowded, unsafe tenements and disease (3) too few workers (4) lower profits for tycoons

37. The 1882 law that banned immigration from China was the

(1) Dawes Act (2) Morrill Act (3) Chinese Exclusion Act (4) Homestead Act

38. The law that gave free Western land to settlers who farmed it for five years was the

(1) Homestead Act (2) Dawes Act (3) Chinese Exclusion Act (4) Gentlemen's Agreement

39. The Dawes Act (1887) mainly affected

(1) Japanese immigrants (2) Native Americans (3) steel workers (4) college students

40. **(Short answer)** Choose TWO of these laws and explain what each did and who it affected: Morrill Act, Chinese Exclusion Act, Gentlemen's Agreement, Dawes Act.

PRACTICE

Answer Key

PART A — RECONSTRUCTION

1. (1) 13th. **2.** (2) citizenship and equal protection. **3.** (2) African American men. **4.** (2) Black Codes. **5.** (2) *Plessy v. Ferguson*. **6.** (2) Jim Crow laws. **7.** (3) 13th, 14th, 15th.

8. (Short answer): The Black Codes were Southern laws that stripped freedom from formerly enslaved people. The 14th Amendment was written partly to *overturn* them, by making all people born in the U.S. citizens with "equal protection of the laws" — rights the Black Codes had denied.

PART B — INDUSTRIALIZATION & THE GILDED AGE

9. (2) industrialization. **10.** (3) laissez-faire. **11.** (1) rise. **12.** (2) Social Darwinism. **13.** (1) Gilded Age. **14.** (3) competition. **15.** (2) free market.

16. (Short answer): Laissez-faire said government should not interfere with business. Social Darwinism said the rich were naturally the "fittest" and the poor deserved their fate. Together they argued that government should do *nothing* — not regulate companies and not help the poor — which let big business grow unchecked.

PART C — BIG BUSINESS & THE TYCOONS

17. (2) monopoly. **18.** (2) horizontal integration. **19.** (3) vertical integration. **20.** (2) trust. **21.** (3) John D. Rockefeller. **22.** (2) steel. **23.** (1) J. P. Morgan. **24.** (3) robber baron. **25.** (2) philanthropist. **26.** (2) connected the country and created a national market.

27. (Short answer): Horizontal integration means buying up your *competitors* at the same stage — Rockefeller bought rival oil refineries until Standard Oil controlled ~90% of oil. Vertical integration means owning *every step* of production — Carnegie owned the iron, coal, railroads, and steel mills, controlling steel from raw material to finished product.

PART D — LABOR, IMMIGRATION & URBANIZATION

28. (2) labor union. **29.** (2) skilled workers; wages, hours, safety. **30.** (1) Homestead Strike. **31.** (2) Southern and Eastern Europe and Asia. **32.** (2) push factors. **33.** (2) pull factors. **34.** (2) Ellis Island. **35.** (2) urbanization. **36.** (2) overcrowded, unsafe tenements and disease. **37.** (3) Chinese Exclusion Act. **38.** (1) Homestead Act. **39.** (2) Native Americans.

40. (Short answer, any two): *Morrill Act* — funded public land-grant colleges; affected ordinary Americans wanting education. *Chinese Exclusion Act* — banned Chinese immigration; affected Chinese immigrants. *Gentlemen's Agreement* — quietly limited Japanese immigration; affected Japanese immigrants. *Dawes Act* — split up tribal land to force assimilation; affected Native Americans, who lost ~⅔ of their land.

Study companion for the 7th-grade U.S. History unit on Industry & Immigration (Reconstruction through the Gilded Age, c. 1865–1900). Prepared for Vaughn.